

Dummit & Foote Notes

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0 Preliminaries

0.1 Basics

- ◆ **Order/Cardinality:** denoted as $|A|$ for a set A . If A is finite, then $|A|$ is the number of elements in A .
- ◆ **Cartesian Product:** The Cartesian product of two sets A and B is the collection of elements

$$A \times B = \{(a, b) \mid a \in A, b \in B\}.$$

- ◆ **Function:** Denoted as $f : A \rightarrow B$ for sets A and B . The value of f at a is denoted as $f(a)$ for all $a \in A$. Moreover, to denote $f(a) = b$, we write $f : a \mapsto b$, or $a \mapsto b$.
- ◆ **Domain:** The set A in the function $f : A \rightarrow B$.
- ◆ **Codomain:** The set B in the function $f : A \rightarrow B$.
- ◆ **Range/Image:** The subset of B defined as

$$f(A) = \{b \in B \mid f(a) = b \text{ for some } a \in A\}.$$

- ◆ **Preimage/Inverse Image:** For $C \subseteq B$, the subset of A given by

$$f^{-1}(C) = \{a \in A \mid f(a) \in C\}.$$

- ◆ **Fiber:** For $b \in B$, the preimage of b , i.e., $f^{-1}(b)$.

- ◆ **Identity Map:** The function on a set A defined as $\text{id}_A : A \rightarrow A$ where $\text{id}_A(a) = a$ for all $a \in A$.
- ◆ **Composition Map:** Given functions $f : A \rightarrow B$ and $g : B \rightarrow C$, it is the map $g \circ f : A \rightarrow C$ is defined as

$$(g \circ f)(a) = g(f(a)) \quad \text{for all } a \in A.$$

Let $f : A \rightarrow B$ be a function.

- ◆ **Injective/Injection:** for all $a_1, a_2 \in A$, $a_1 \neq a_2$ implies $f(a_1) \neq f(a_2)$.
- ◆ **Surjective/Surjection:** for all $b \in B$, there exists $a \in A$ such that $f(a) = b$, i.e., $f(A) = B$.
- ◆ **Bijjective/Bijection:** f is both injective and surjective.
- ◆ **Left Inverse:** A function $g : B \rightarrow A$ is a left inverse of $f : A \rightarrow B$ if $g \circ f = \text{id}_A$.
- ◆ **Right Inverse:** A function $h : B \rightarrow A$ is a right inverse of $f : A \rightarrow B$ if $f \circ h = \text{id}_B$.

♣ Proposition 0.1 ► Characterizations of Injectivity, Surjectivity, and Bijjectivity

Let $f : A \rightarrow B$ be a function.

- (1) f is injective if and only if f has a left inverse.
- (2) f is surjective if and only if f has a right inverse.
- (3) f is a bijection if and only if there exists $g : B \rightarrow A$ such that $g \circ f = \text{id}_A$ and $f \circ g = \text{id}_B$.
- (4) If A and B are finite sets with $|A| = |B|$, then the following are equivalent:
 - (a) f is bijective.
 - (b) f is injective.
 - (c) f is surjective.

Proof.

- (1) $\Rightarrow$ Suppose f has a left inverse $g : B \rightarrow A$. Then for all $a_1, a_2 \in A$, if $f(a_1) = f(a_2)$, then

$$a_1 = g(f(a_1)) = g(f(a_2)) = a_2,$$

so f is injective.

◀ Suppose f is injective. Then for each $b \in f(A)$, there exists a unique $a \in A$ such that $f(a) = b$. Now, fix some $a_0 \in A$. Then we can define a function $g : B \rightarrow A$ as

$$g(b) = \begin{cases} a & \text{if } b \in f(A) \text{ and } f(a) = b, \\ a_0 & \text{if } b \in B \setminus f(A). \end{cases}$$

To see g is well-defined, note that if $b \in f(A)$, then by injectivity of f , there is a unique $a \in A$ such that $f(a) = b$. Then for all $a \in A$,

$$g(f(a)) = a,$$

so $g \circ f = \text{id}_A$ and g is a left inverse of f .

(2) ➡ Suppose f has a right inverse $h : B \rightarrow A$. Then for all $b \in B$, we may set $a = h(b) \in A$. Then $f(a) = f(h(b)) = b$, so f is surjective.

◀ Suppose f is surjective. Then $f^{-1}(b)$ is nonempty for all $b \in B$. Define a function $h : B \rightarrow A$ by choosing some $a \in f^{-1}(b)$ for each $b \in B$, where this choice is possible by the axiom of choice. Then for all $b \in B$,

$$f(h(b)) = b,$$

so $f \circ h = \text{id}_B$ and h is a right inverse of f .

(3) ➡ Suppose f is bijective. Then by (1) and (2), f has a left inverse $g : B \rightarrow A$ and a right inverse $h : B \rightarrow A$. Then for all $b \in B$,

$$g(b) = g(f(h(b))) = h(b),$$

where $g(f(h(b))) = g(b)$ because $f(h(b)) = b$ from h being a right inverse of f , and $g(f(h(b))) = h(b)$ because g is a left inverse of f . Thus, $g = h$ and $g \circ f = \text{id}_A$ and $f \circ g = \text{id}_B$.

◀ Suppose there exists $g : B \rightarrow A$ such that $g \circ f = \text{id}_A$ and $f \circ g = \text{id}_B$. Then by (1) and (2), f is injective and surjective, so f is bijective.

- (4)
- If f is bijective, then by (1) and (2), f is injective and surjective.
 - If f is injective, then distinct elements of A map to distinct elements of B . Since $|A| = |B|$, this implies that f is surjective, so f is bijective.
 - If f is surjective, then all elements of B are mapped to by elements of A . Since $|A| = |B|$, this implies that f is injective, so f is bijective. □

◆ **Inverse:** The function $g : B \rightarrow A$ in [Proposition 0.1](#) (3), denoted as $f^{-1} : B \rightarrow A$.

◆ **Permutation:** A bijection $f : A \rightarrow A$.

◆ **Restriction:** Let $A \subseteq B$ and $f : B \rightarrow C$ be a function. The **restriction** of f to A is the function $f|_A : A \rightarrow C$ defined as

$$f|_A(a) = f(a) \quad \text{for all } a \in A.$$

◆ **Extension:** Let $A \subseteq B$ and $g : A \rightarrow C$ be a function. The **extension** of g to B is a function $f : B \rightarrow C$ such that $f|_A = g$. This function need not be unique, and may not even exist.

Let A be a set.

- ◆ **Binary Relation:** A subset $R \subseteq A \times A$, where we write $a \sim b$ if $(a, b) \in R$.
- ◆ **Reflexive:** A relation R is reflexive if $a \sim a$ for all $a \in A$.
- ◆ **Symmetric:** A relation R is symmetric if $a \sim b$ implies $b \sim a$ for all $a, b \in A$.
- ◆ **Transitive:** A relation R is transitive if $a \sim b$ and $b \sim c$ implies $a \sim c$ for all $a, b, c \in A$.
- ◆ **Equivalence Relation:** A relation R that is reflexive, symmetric, and transitive.
- ◆ **Equivalence Class:** For $a \in A$, the equivalence class of a is the set

$$[a] = \{b \in A \mid b \sim a\}.$$

Elements of the $[a]$ are said to be **equivalent** to a and are **representatives** of $[a]$.

◆ **Partition:** Let I be an indexing set. A partition of A is a collection of nonempty subsets $\{A_i\}_{i \in I}$ such that

- (1) $A = \bigcup_{i \in I} A_i$.
- (2) $A_i \cap A_j = \emptyset$ for all $i, j \in I$ with $i \neq j$.

♣ Proposition 0.2 ► Fundamental Theorem of Equivalence Relations

Let A be a nonempty set.

- (1) If $\sim$ is an equivalence relation on A , then the set of equivalence classes of $\sim$ form a partition of A .
- (2) Let I be an indexing set. If $\{A_i \mid i \in I\}$ is a partition of A , then there is an equivalence relation on A whose equivalence classes are the sets A_i for $i \in I$.

Proof.

- (1) Let $\sim$ be an equivalence relation on A , and put

$$B = \bigcup_{a \in A} [a]$$

to be the union of all equivalence classes of $\sim$. For any $a \in A$, we have $a \sim a$ by reflexivity, so $a \in [a]$ and thus $a \in B$. Hence, $A \subseteq B$. Conversely, let $b \in B$. Then $b \in [a]$ for some $a \in A$, so $b \sim a$ and thus $b \in A$. Hence, $B \subseteq A$ and thus $A = B$.

Now, let $a, b \in A$. If $[a] \cap [b] = \emptyset$, then we are done. Otherwise, let $c \in [a] \cap [b]$. Then $c \sim a$ and $c \sim b$, so by symmetry and transitivity, we have $a \sim c$ and $c \sim b$, which implies $a \sim b$. Now, let $x \in [a]$. Then $x \sim a$ and $a \sim b$, so by transitivity, we have $x \sim b$ and thus $x \in [b]$. Hence, $[a] \subseteq [b]$. A similar argument shows that $[b] \subseteq [a]$, so $[a] = [b]$, and thus the equivalence classes of $\sim$ form a partition of A .

- (2) Let $\{A_i \mid i \in I\}$ be a partition of A . Define a relation $\sim$ on A by $a \sim b$ if and only if there exists $i \in I$ such that $a, b \in A_i$. Then $\sim$ is reflexive because for any $a \in A$, there exists $i \in I$ such that $a \in A_i$, so $a \sim a$. Moreover, $\sim$ is symmetric because if $a \sim b$, then there exists $i \in I$ such that $a, b \in A_i$, so $b \sim a$. Finally, $\sim$ is transitive because if $a \sim b$ and $b \sim c$, then there exist $i, j \in I$ such that $a, b \in A_i$ and $b, c \in A_j$. Since $b \in A_i \cap A_j$, we must have $i = j$ because the A_i are disjoint for $i \neq j$. Hence, $a, c \in A_i$, so $a \sim c$. Therefore, $\sim$ is an equivalence relation, and its equivalence classes are precisely the sets A_i for $i \in I$. $\square$

0.2 Properties of the Integers

◆ **Well-Ordering of $\mathbb{Z}$:** If $A \subseteq \mathbb{Z}^+$ is nonempty, there exists $a' \in A$ such that $a' \leq a$ for all a in A , called the **minimal element** of A .

◆ **Divides:** For $a, b \in \mathbb{Z}$ with $a \neq 0$, we say that a **divides** b , denoted $a \mid b$, if there exists $c \in \mathbb{Z}$ such that $b = ac$. Moreover, if a does not divide b , we write $a \nmid b$.

◆ **Greatest Common Divisor:** Denoted as (a, b) for $a, b \in \mathbb{Z}$ with $a \neq 0$, it is the unique $d \in \mathbb{Z}^+$ such that

- $d \mid a$ and $d \mid b$, and
- if $c \in \mathbb{Z}$ such that $c \mid a$ and $c \mid b$, then $c \mid d$.

◆ **Relatively Prime:** Nonzero $a, b \in \mathbb{Z}$ such that $(a, b) = 1$.

◆ **Least Common Multiple:** Denoted as $\text{lcm}(a, b)$ for $a, b \in \mathbb{Z}$ with $a \neq 0$, it is the unique $\ell \in \mathbb{Z}^+$ such that

- $a \mid \ell$ and $b \mid \ell$, and
- if $c \in \mathbb{Z}$ such that $a \mid c$ and $b \mid c$, then $\ell \mid c$.

 **Note**

For $a, b \in \mathbb{Z}$ with $a \neq 0$, we have

$$(a, b) \cdot \text{lcm}(a, b) = |ab|.$$

◆ **The Division Algorithm:** For $a, b \in \mathbb{Z}$ with $b > 0$, there exist unique $q, r \in \mathbb{Z}$ such that

$$a = bq + r \quad \text{and} \quad 0 \leq r < b.$$

We say that q is the **quotient** and r is the **remainder** of the division of a by b .

◆ **The Euclidean Algorithm:** For $a, b \in \mathbb{Z}$ with $b > 0$, we can find (a, b) by repeatedly applying the division algorithm to a and b until we reach a remainder of 0. More precisely, we can find (a, b) by finding a sequence of integers $r_0, r_1, \dots, r_n$ such that

$$\begin{aligned} a &= bq_0 + r_0, \\ b &= r_0q_1 + r_1, \\ r_0 &= r_1q_2 + r_2, \\ &\vdots \\ r_{n-2} &= r_{n-1}q_n + r_n, \\ r_{n-1} &= r_nq_{n+1} + 0. \end{aligned}$$

The last nonzero remainder r_n is (a, b) .

◆ **$\mathbb{Z}$ -Linear Combination:** For $a, b \in \mathbb{Z}$, an expression of the form $ax + by$ for some $x, y \in \mathbb{Z}$.

 **Note**

We may reverse the Euclidean algorithm (also known as the extended Euclidean algorithm) to obtain the $\mathbb{Z}$ -linear combination of a, b that equates to (a, b) .

✓ **Example ▶ Calculating a Linear Combination**

Let $a = 63$ and $b = 39$. Using the Euclidean algorithm, we find

$$\begin{aligned} 63 &= 39(1) + 24, \\ 39 &= 24(1) + 15, \\ 24 &= 15(1) + 9, \\ 15 &= 9(1) + 6, \\ 9 &= 6(1) + 3, \\ 6 &= 3(2) + 0. \end{aligned}$$

Thus, $(63, 39) = 3$. Reversing the Euclidean algorithm, we find

$$\begin{aligned} 3 &= 9 - 6(1) = 9 - (15 - 9(1))(1) \\ &= 9(2) - 15(1) = (24 - 15(1))(2) - 15(1) \\ &= 24(2) - 15(3) = 24(2) - (39 - 24(1))(3) \\ &= 24(5) - 39(3) = (63 - 39(1))(5) - 39(3) \\ &= 63(5) - 39(8). \end{aligned}$$

◆ **Prime:** A nonzero integer p whose only positive divisors are 1 and p .

◆ **Composite:** A nonzero integer n that is not prime.

📖 Note

▮ If a prime $p \mid ab$ for some $a, b \in \mathbb{Z}$, then either $p \mid a$ or $p \mid b$.

◆ **Fundamental Theorem of Arithmetic:** Every integer $n > 1$ can be written as a product of primes, and this factorization is unique up to the order of the factors.

📖 Note

▮ If n has two prime factorizations

$$n = \prod_{i=1}^k p_i^{\alpha_i} = \prod_{j=1}^m q_j^{\beta_j}$$

for primes p_i, q_j and $\alpha_i, \beta_j \in \mathbb{Z}^+$, then $k = m$ and, after reordering, $p_i = q_i$ and $\alpha_i = \beta_i$ for all i .

📖 Note

▮ Let $a, b \in \mathbb{Z}^+$ have prime factorizations

$$a = \prod_{i=1}^k p_i^{\alpha_i}, \quad b = \prod_{i=1}^k p_i^{\beta_i}$$

where p_i are distinct primes and $\alpha_i, \beta_i \geq 0$. Then

$$(a, b) = \prod_{i=1}^k p_i^{\min(\alpha_i, \beta_i)}, \quad \text{lcm}(a, b) = \prod_{i=1}^k p_i^{\max(\alpha_i, \beta_i)}.$$

◆ **Euler φ -Function:** For $n \in \mathbb{Z}^+$, $\varphi(n)$ is the number of integers k such that $1 \leq k \leq n$ and $(k, n) = 1$, along with two properties:

- For prime p and $\alpha \in \mathbb{Z}^+$, we have $\varphi(p^\alpha) = p^\alpha - p^{\alpha-1}$.
- For $m, n \in \mathbb{Z}^+$ such that $(m, n) = 1$, we have $\varphi(mn) = \varphi(m)\varphi(n)$.